

CSE213

MICROCONTROLLER PROGRAMMING

The Microprocessor and Its Architecture

Introduction

- This chapter presents the microprocessor as a programmable device by first looking at its internal programming model and then how its memory space is addressed.
- The architecture of Intel microprocessors is presented, as are the ways that the family members address the memory system.
- Addressing modes for this powerful family of microprocessors are described for the real, protected, and flat modes of operation.

Chapter Objectives

Upon completion of this chapter, you will be able to:

- Explain basic structure of Intel 8086 microprocessor, programming structure and software development flow
- Describe function and purpose of each program-visible register in the 8086-Core2 microprocessors, including 64-bit extensions.
- Detail the flag register and the purpose of each flag bit.

Chapter Objectives

(*cont.*)

Upon completion of this chapter, you will be able to:

- Describe how memory is accessed using real mode memory-addressing techniques.
- Describe how memory is accessed using protected mode memory-addressing techniques.
- Describe how memory is accessed using the 64-bit flat memory model.

PROGRAMMING STRUCTURE

- The lowest-level programming language is the Machine language which is the only one understood by computers.
- While easily understood by computers, machine languages are almost impossible for humans to use because they consist entirely of numbers (e.g., 1s and 0s).

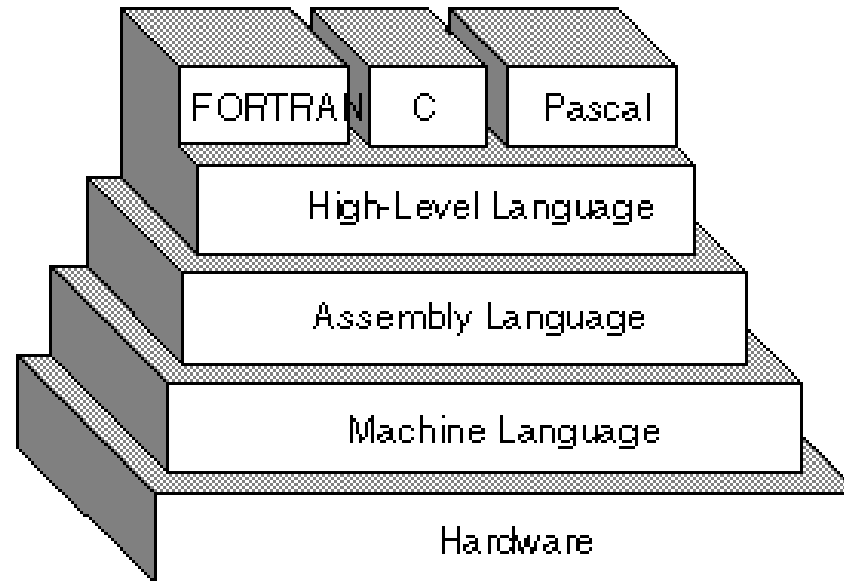
PROGRAMMING STRUCTURE

- Programmers, therefore, use either a high-level programming language or an assembly language.
- An assembly language contains the same instructions as a machine language, but the instructions and variables have names instead of being just numbers.

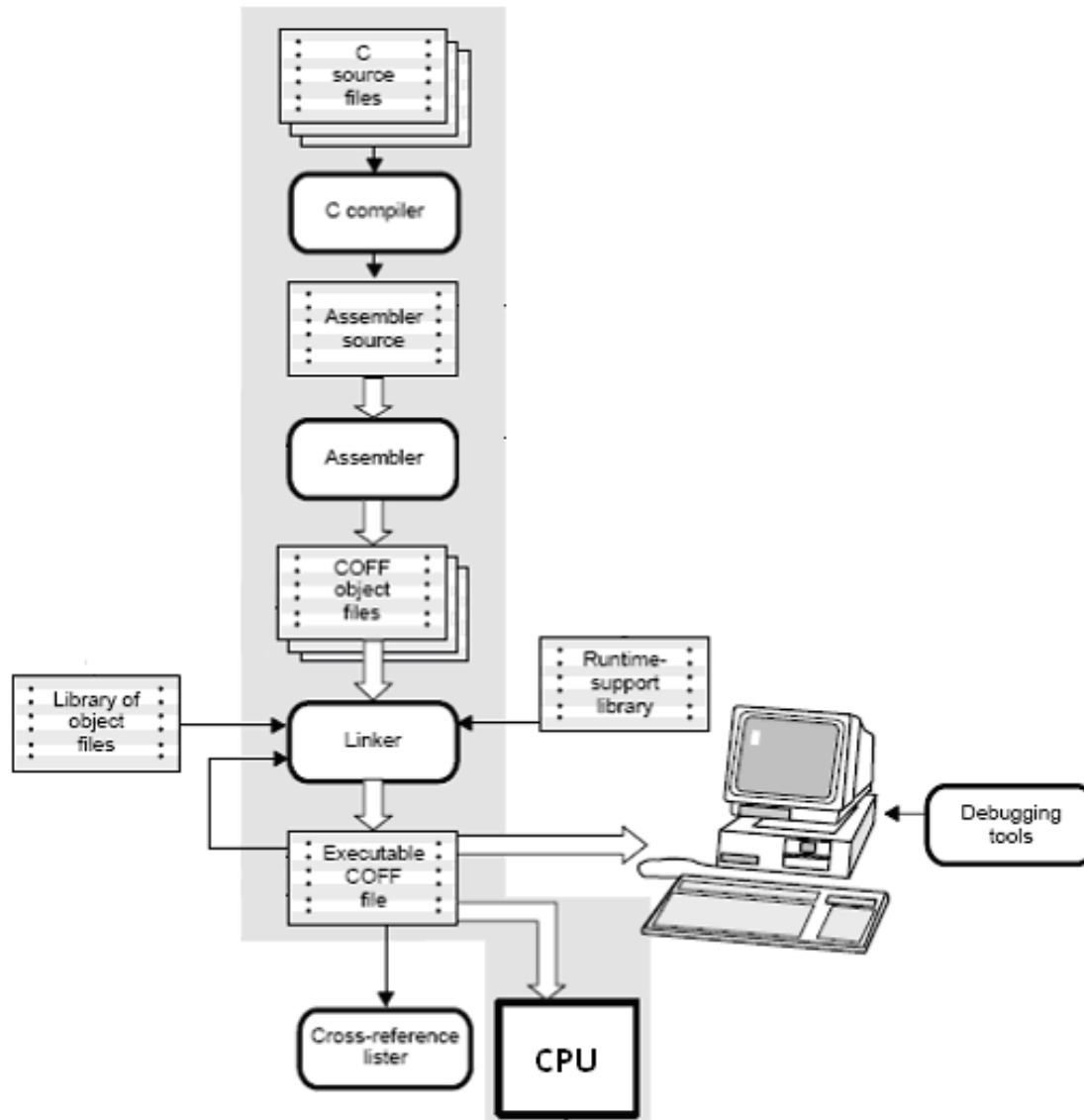
PROGRAMMING STRUCTURE

- Every CPU has its own unique machine language. Programs must be rewritten or recompiled to run on different types of computers.
- High-level languages are, however, platform independent. They can run on different types of computers.

PROGRAMMING STRUCTURE



SOFTWARE DEVELOPMENT FLOW



SOFTWARE DEVELOPMENT FLOW

- The following list describes sample tools that are used for software development.
- The **compiler (e.g., C, C++, C#)** translates source code into assembly language source code.
- The **assembler** translates assembly language source files into machine language (object files). Source files contain numbers corresponding to instructions.

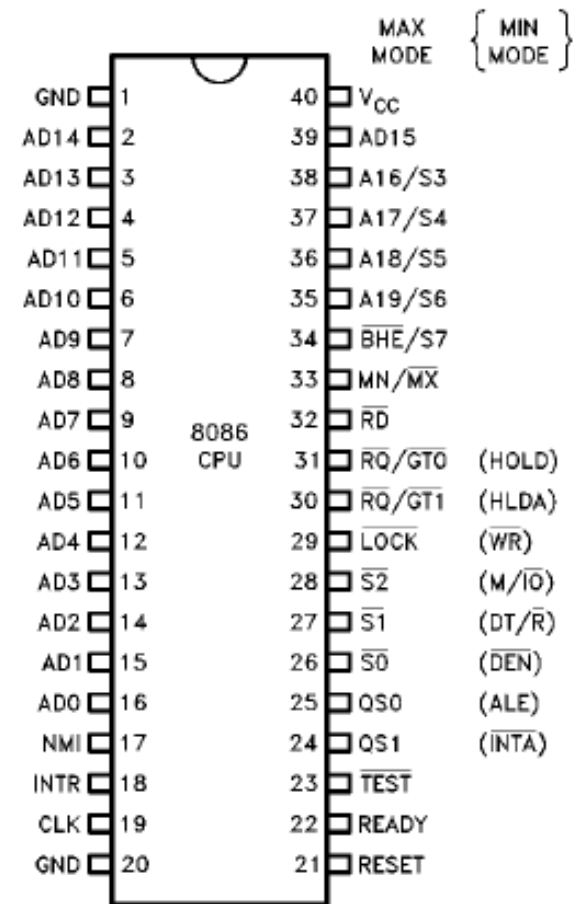
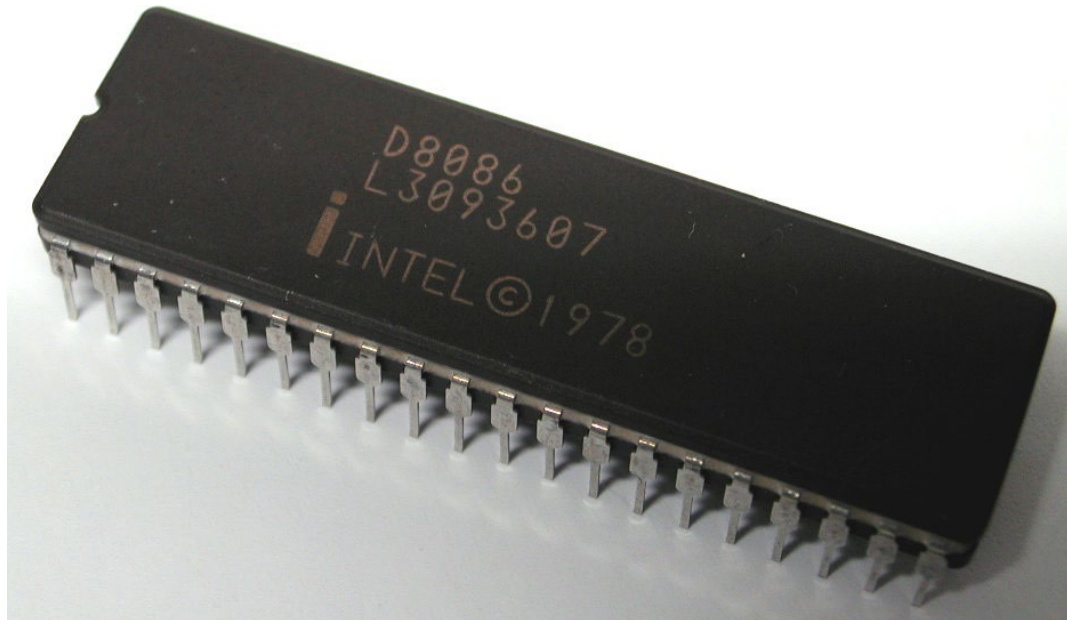
SOFTWARE DEVELOPMENT FLOW

- The **linker** combines object files created by the assembler into a single executable object module. As it creates the executable module, it binds symbols to memory locations and resolves all references to those symbols. It also accepts library members and output modules created by a previous linker run.
- The **cross-reference lister** uses object files to produce a cross-reference listing showing variable and symbols, their definitions, memory locations and their references in the linked source files.

Inside Intel 8086

- The **8086** is a 16-bit microprocessor chip designed by Intel in 1978, which gave rise to the x86 architecture.
- Intel 8088, released in 1979, was essentially the same chip, but with an external 8-bit data bus (allowing the use of cheaper and fewer supporting logic chips), and is notable as the processor used in the original IBM PC.

Inside Intel 8086



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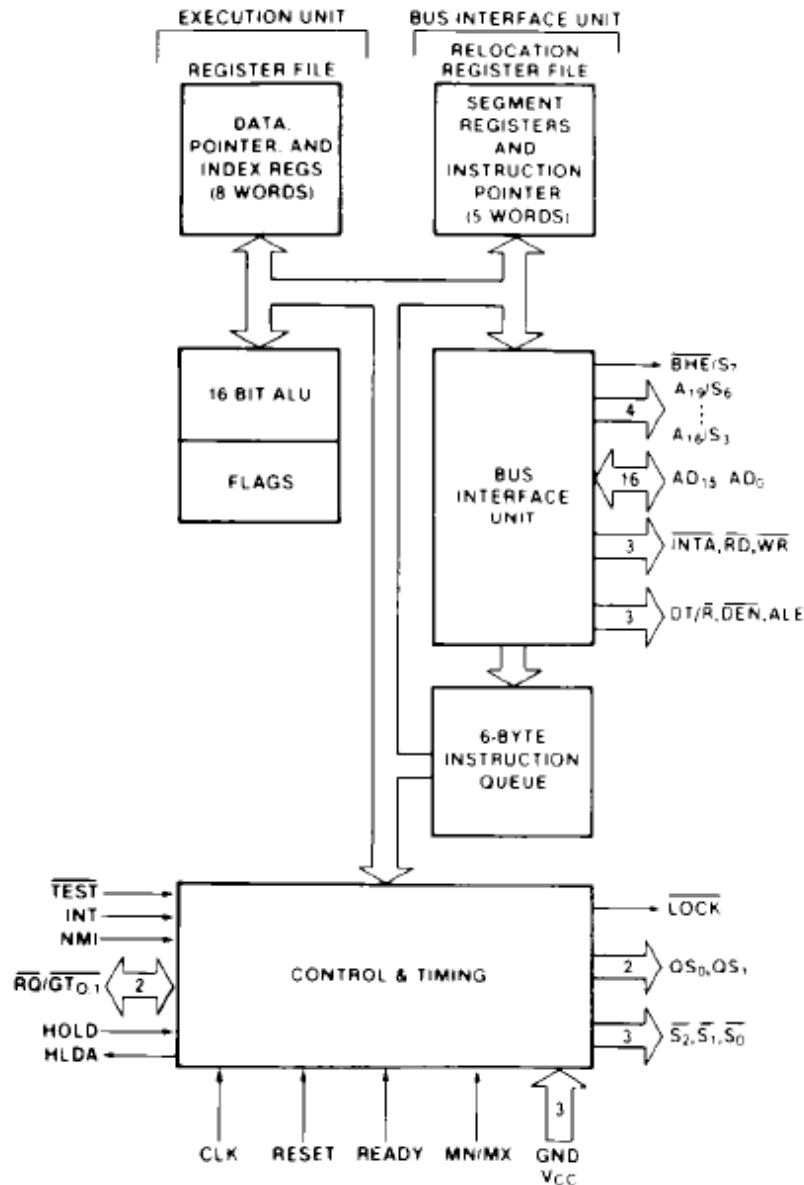
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8086 Pin Configuration

Inside Intel 8086

- All internal registers as well as internal and external data buses of the 8086 are 16 bits wide, firmly establishing an actual "16-bit microprocessor".
- Clock rate of the first edition of 8086 was 5 MHz. Later, 8 and 10 MHz versions were also produced.
- A 20-bit external address bus gives a 1 MB (segmented) physical address space.
- 16-bit I/O addresses give 64 KB of separate I/O space.

Inside Intel 8086



- 8086 is internally divided into two separate functional units.

- Bus Interface Unit (BIU)
- Execution Unit (EU).

- This concept of dividing work between two processors and processing it simultaneously (parallel processing) speeds up the execution.

Inside Intel 8086

BUS INTERFACE UNIT

- The BIU sends out address, fetches instruction from memory, reads data from ports and memory and writes data to ports and memory. In other words the BIU handles all transfers of data and addresses on the buses for the execution unit.

Inside Intel 8086

INSTRUCTION QUEUE

- To speed up the program execution BIU fetches as many as 6 instruction bytes ahead of the memory. The pre fetch instruction bytes are held in Instruction Queue. The BIU can be fetching instruction bytes while EU is decoding or executing an instruction, which does not require the use of buses.
- When the EU is ready for its next instruction it simply reads the instruction from the queue in the BIU. This pre fetch and Queue scheme greatly speeds up processing. Fetching the next instruction while the current instruction executes is called Pipelining.

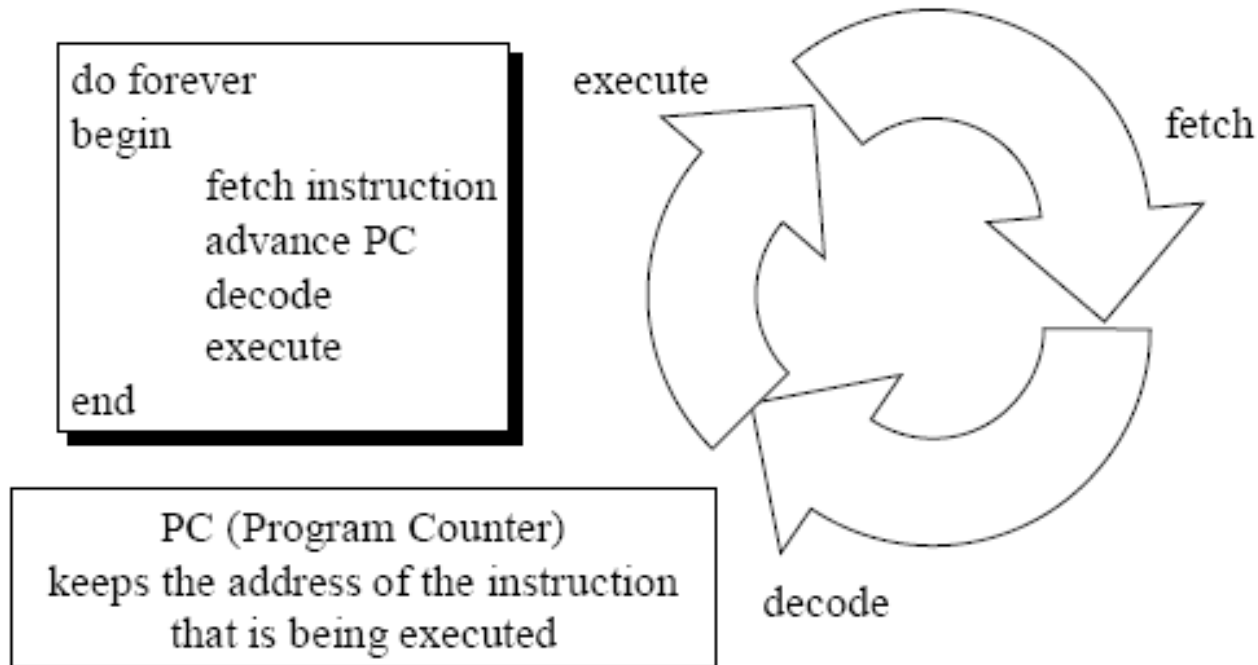
Inside Intel 8086

EXECUTION UNIT

- The EU of the 8086 tells the BIU,
 - where to fetch instructions or data from,
 - decodes instruction and executes instructions.
- The EU contains a 16 bit ALU which can **add, subtract, AND, OR, XOR, increment, decrement, complement, or shift** binary numbers.instructions

Inside Intel 8086

Basic Instruction Cycle



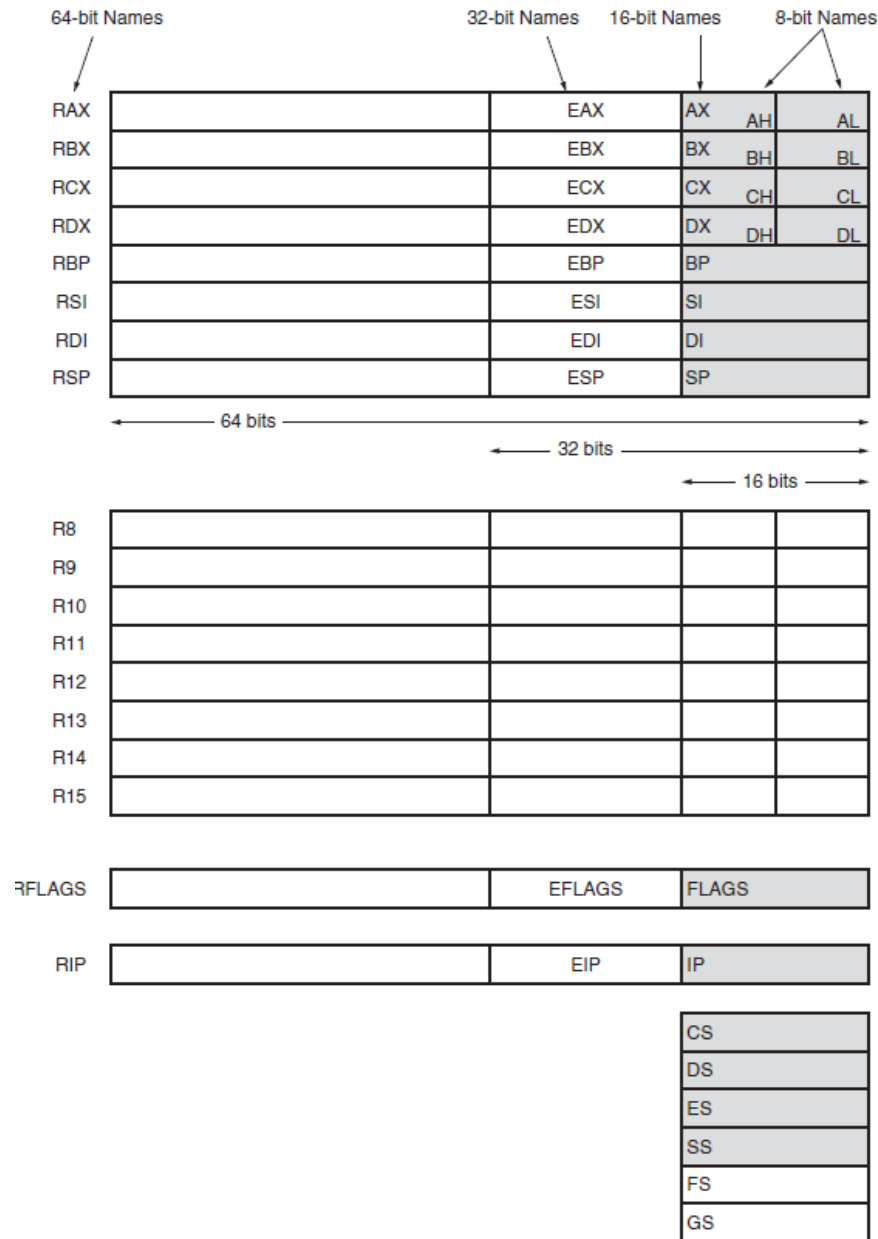
INTERNAL MICROPROCESSOR ARCHITECTURE

- Before a program is written or instruction investigated, internal configuration of the microprocessor must be known.
- In a multiple core microprocessor each core contains the same programming model.
- Each core runs a separate task or thread simultaneously.

The Programming Model

- 8086 through Core2 considered **program visible**.
 - particular registers are used during programming and are specified by the instructions
- Other registers considered to be **program invisible**.
 - not addressable directly during applications programming

Figure 2–1 The programming model of the 8086 through the Core2 microprocessor including the 64-bit extensions.



Multipurpose Registers

- **RAX** - a 64-bit register (RAX), a 32-bit register (**accumulator**) (EAX), (for 8086) a 16-bit register (AX), or as either of two 8-bit registers (AH and AL).
- The accumulator is used for instructions such as multiplication, division, and some of the adjustment instructions.
- Intel plans to expand the address bus to 52 bits to address 4P (peta) bytes of memory.

- **RBX**, addressable as RBX, EBX, **BX**, **BH**, **BL**.
 - BX register (**base index**) sometimes holds offset address of a location in the memory system in all versions of the microprocessor
- **RCX**, as RCX, ECX, **CX**, **CH**, or **CL**.
 - a (**count**) general-purpose register that also holds the count for various instructions
- **RDX**, as RDX, EDX, **DX**, **DH**, or **DL**.
 - a (**data**) general-purpose register
 - holds a part of the result from a multiplication or part of dividend before a division

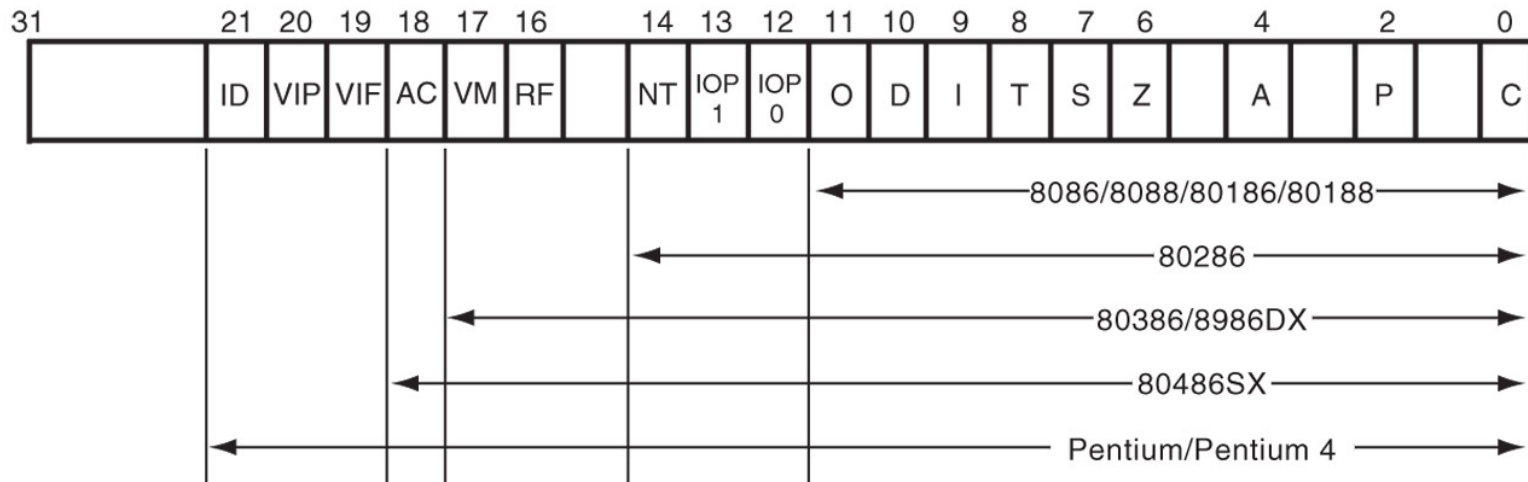
- **RBP**, as RBP, EBP, or **BP**.
 - points to a memory (**base pointer**) location for memory data transfers
- **RDI** addressable as RDI, EDI, or **DI**.
 - often addresses (**destination index**) string destination data for the string instructions
- **RSI** used as RSI, ESI, or **SI**.
 - the (**source index**) register addresses source string data for the string instructions
 - like RDI, RSI also functions as a general-purpose register

Special-Purpose Registers

- Include RIP, RSP, and RFLAGS
 - segment registers include **CS**, **DS**, **ES**, **SS**, FS, and GS
- **RIP** addresses the next instruction in a section of memory.
 - defined as (**instruction pointer**) a code segment
- **RSP** addresses an area of memory called the stack.
 - the (**stack pointer**) stores data through this pointer

- **RFLAGS** indicate the condition of the microprocessor and control its operation.
- Figure 2–2 shows the flag registers of all versions of the microprocessor.
- Flags are upward-compatible from the 8086/8088 through Core2 .
- The rightmost five and the overflow flag are changed by most arithmetic and logic operations.
 - although data transfers do not affect them

Figure 2–2 The EFLAGS and FLAG register counts for the entire 8086 and Pentium microprocessor family.



- Flags never change for any data transfer or program control operation.
- Some of the flags are also used to control features found in the microprocessor.

List of Each Flag bit with a brief description of function.

- **C (carry)** holds the carry after addition or borrow after subtraction.
 - also indicates error conditions
- **P (parity)** is the count of ones in a number expressed as even or odd. Logic 0 for odd parity; logic 1 for even parity.
 - if a number contains three binary one bits, it has odd parity (e.g., 1110 1010 $\rightarrow$ P=0)
 - if a number contains no one bits, it has even parity (e.g., 0000 0101 $\rightarrow$ P=1)

- **A (auxiliary carry)** holds the carry (half-carry) after addition or the borrow after subtraction between bit positions 3 and 4 of the result.
- **Z (zero)** shows that the result of an arithmetic or logic operation is zero.
- **S (sign)** flag holds the arithmetic sign of the result after an arithmetic or logic instruction executes.
- **T (trap)** The trap flag enables trapping through an on-chip debugging feature.

- **I (interrupt)** controls operation of the INTR (interrupt request) input pin.
- **D (direction)** selects increment or decrement mode for the DI and/or SI registers.
- **O (overflow)** occurs when signed numbers are added or subtracted.
 - an overflow indicates the result has exceeded the capacity of the machine

Segment Registers

- Generate memory addresses when combined with other registers in the microprocessor.
- Four or six segment registers in various versions of the microprocessor (four in 8086)
- A segment register functions differently in real mode than in protected mode.
- Following is a list of each segment register, along with its function in the system.

- **CS (code)** segment holds code (programs and procedures) used by the microprocessor.
- **DS (data)** contains most data used by a program.
 - Data are accessed by an offset address or contents of other registers that hold the offset address
- **ES (extra)** an additional data segment used by some instructions to hold destination data.

- **SS (stack)** defines the area of memory used for the stack.
 - stack entry point is determined by the stack segment and stack pointer registers
 - the BP register also addresses data within the stack segment

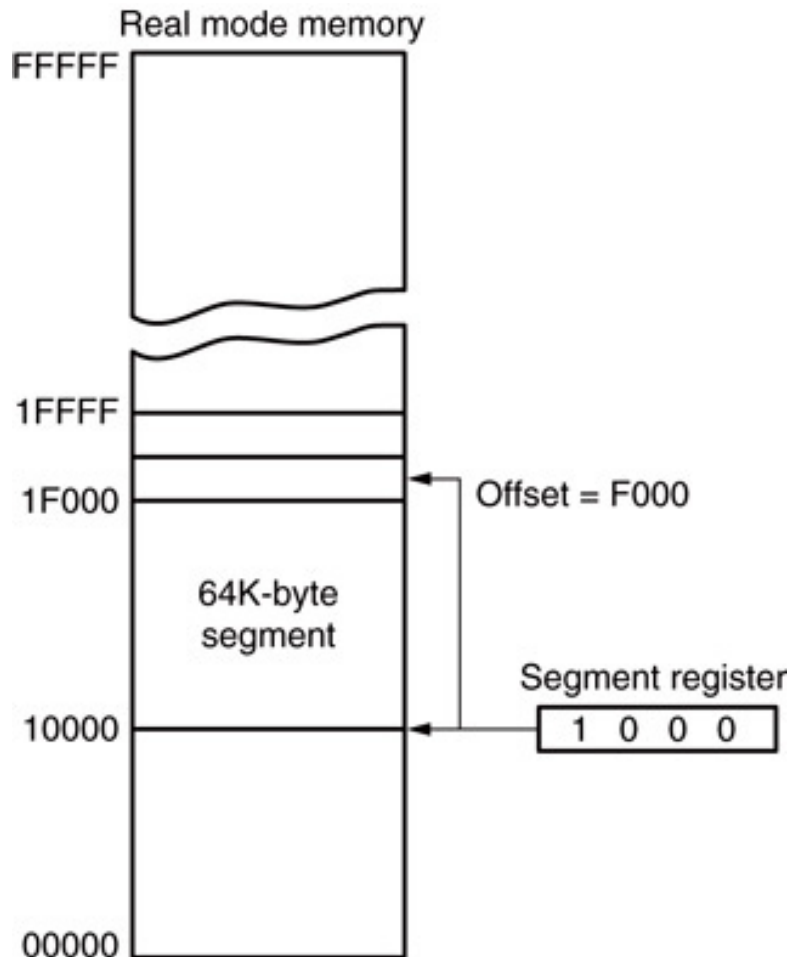
REAL MODE MEMORY ADDRESSING

- 80286 and above operate in either the real or protected mode.
- **Real mode operation** allows addressing of only the first 1M byte of memory space—even in Pentium 4 or Core2 microprocessor.
 - the first 1M byte of memory is called the **real memory, conventional memory, or DOS memory** system

Segments and Offsets

- All real mode memory addresses must consist of a segment address plus an offset address.
 - **segment address** defines the beginning address of any 64K-byte memory segment
 - **offset address** selects any location within the 64K byte memory segment
- Figure 2–3 shows how the **segment plus offset** addressing scheme selects a memory location.

Figure 2–3 The real mode memory-addressing scheme, using a segment address plus an offset.



- this shows a memory segment beginning at 10000H, ending at location 1FFFFH
 - 64K bytes in length
- also shows how an offset address, called a **displacement**, of F000H selects location 1F000H in the memory

- Once the beginning address is known, the **ending address** is found by adding FFFFH.
 - because a real mode segment of memory is 64K in length
- The offset address is always added to the segment starting address to locate the data.
- Segment and offset address is sometimes written as 1000:2000.
 - a segment address of 1000H; an offset of 2000H
 - yields 12000H ($1000H \times 10H + 2000H$) real address

Default Segment and Offset Registers

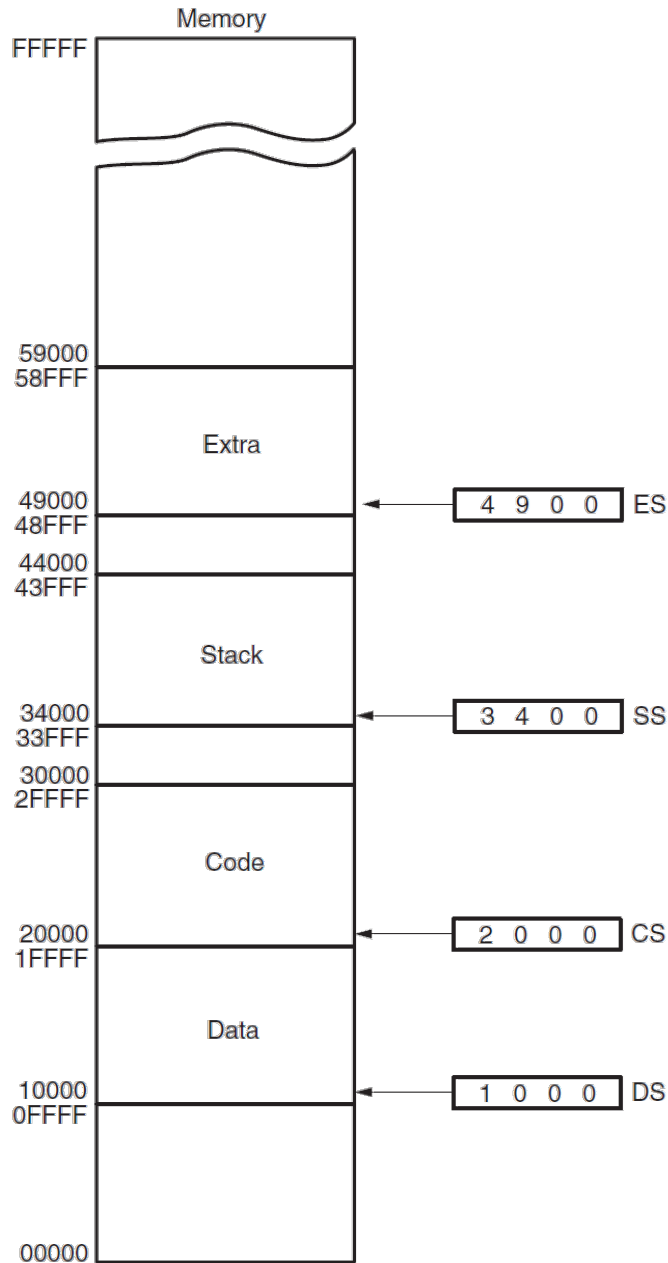
- The microprocessor has rules that apply to segments whenever memory is addressed.
 - these define the segment and offset register combination
- The **code segment** register defines the start of the code segment.
- The **instruction pointer** locates the next instruction within the code segment.

- Another of the default combinations is the **stack**.
 - stack data are referenced through the stack segment at the memory location addressed by either the stack pointer (SP/ESP) or the pointer (BP/EBP)

<i>Segment</i>		<i>Offset</i>	<i>Special Purpose</i>
CS	IP		Instruction address
SS	SP or BP		Stack address
DS	BX, DI, SI, an 8- or 16-bit number		Data address
ES	DI for string instructions		String destination address

Default 16-bit segment and offset combinations.

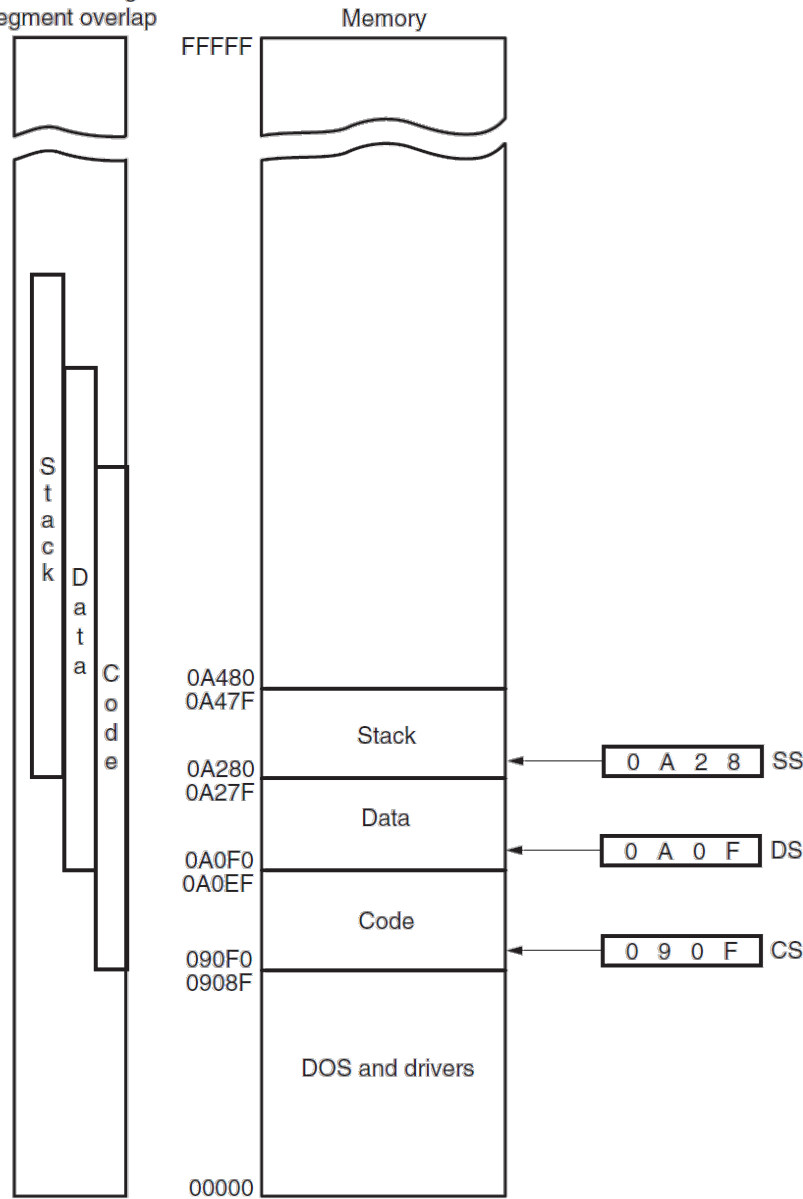
Figure 2–4 A memory system showing the placement of four memory segments.



- a memory segment can touch or overlap if 64K bytes of memory are not required for a segment
- think of segments as windows that can be moved over any area of memory to access data or code
- a program can have more than four or six segments,
 - but only access four or six segments at a time

Figure 2–5 An application program containing a code, data, and stack segment loaded into a DOS system memory.

Imaginary side
view detailing
segment overlap



- a program placed in memory by DOS is loaded in the TPA at the first available area of memory above drivers and other TPA programs
- area is indicated by a **free-pointer** maintained by DOS
- program loading is handled automatically by the **program loader** within DOS

Segment and Offset Addressing Scheme Allows Relocation

- Segment plus offset addressing allows DOS programs to be relocated in memory.
- A **relocatable program** is one that can be placed into any area of memory and executed without change.
- **Relocatable data** are data that can be placed in any area of memory and used without any change to the program.

- Because memory is addressed within a segment by an offset address, the memory segment can be moved to any place in the memory system without changing any of the offset addresses.
- Only the contents of the segment register must be changed to address the program in the new area of memory.
- Windows programs are written assuming that the first 2G of memory are available for code and data.

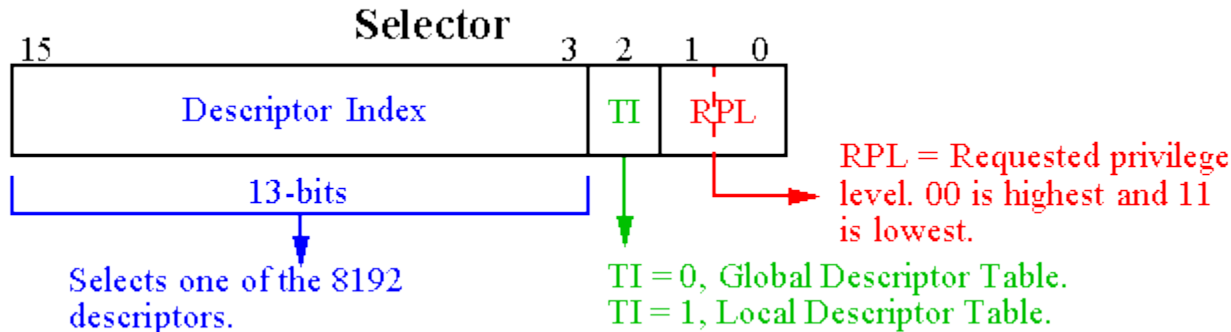
INTRO TO PROTECTED MODE MEMORY ADDRESSING

- Allows access to data and programs located within & above the first 1M byte of memory.
- **Protected mode** is where Windows operates.
- In place of a segment address, the segment register contains a **selector** that selects a descriptor from a descriptor table.
- The **descriptor** describes the memory segment's location, length, and access rights.

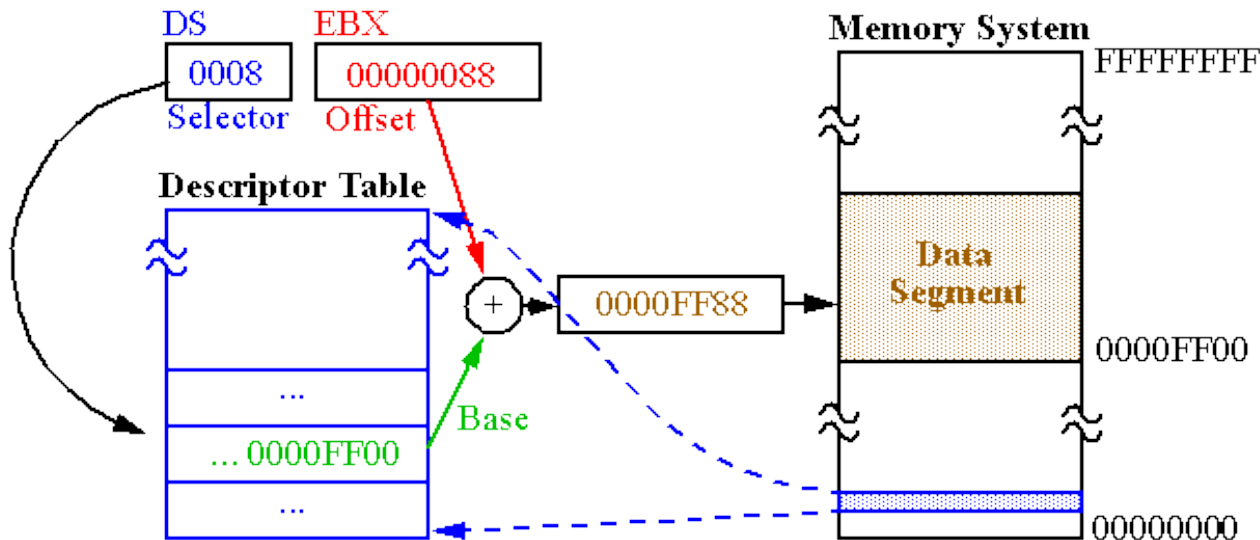
Selectors and Descriptors

- The **descriptor** is located in the segment register & describes the location, length, and access rights of the segment of memory.
 - it selects one of 8192 descriptors from one of two tables of descriptors
- In protected mode, this segment number can address any memory location in the system for the code segment.
- Indirectly, the register still selects a memory segment, but not directly as in real mode.

Protected Mode Memory Addressing



Segment Registers in Protected Mode



Segments

are interpreted differently in Protected vs. Real Mode:

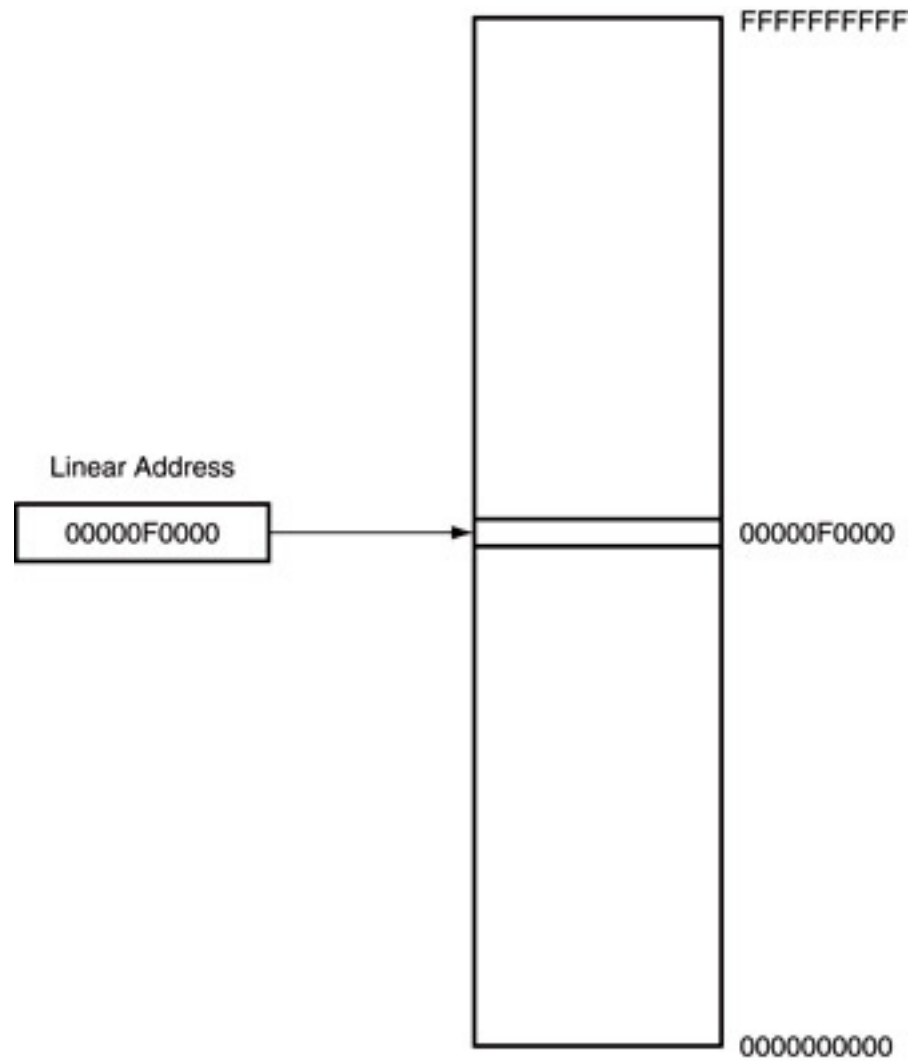
- Segment register contains a selector that selects a descriptor from the descriptor table.
- The descriptor contains information about the segment, e.g., its base address, length and access rights.

Flat Mode Memory

- A *flat mode memory* system is one in which there is no segmentation.
 - does not use a segment register to address a location in the memory
- First byte address is at 00 0000 0000H; the last location is at FF FFFF FFFFH.
 - address is 40-bits
- The segment register still selects the privilege level of the software.

- Real mode system is *not* available if the processor operates in the 64-bit mode.
- Protection and paging are allowed in the 64-bit mode.
- The CS register is still used in the protected mode operation in the 64-bit mode.
- Most programs today are operated in the IA32 compatible mode.
 - current software operates properly, but this will change in a few years as memory becomes larger and most people have 64-bit computers

Figure 2–15 The 64-bit flat mode memory model.





The Intel Microprocessors: 8086/8088, 80186/80188, 80286, 80386, 80486 Pentium, Pentium Pro Processor, Pentium II, Pentium, 4, and Core2 with 64-bit Extensions Architecture, Programming, and Interfacing, Eighth Edition
Barry B. Brey

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